

Module 01: Deep Dive into Linear Algebra for Machine Learning

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Abstract

Linear Algebra is not just about solving for x . In Machine Learning, it is the fundamental framework for representing data, performing efficient computations, and understanding the geometric structure of high-dimensional spaces. This note provides an intuitive and comprehensive guide to the concepts you need to win the datathon.

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1 The Hierarchy of Data Structures in ML

In ML, we don't just see numbers; we see **tensors**. A tensor is simply a generalization of scalars, vectors, and matrices to any number of dimensions.

- **Scalars (0D):** A single magnitude. *Example:* The learning rate $\alpha = 0.001$.
- **Vectors (1D):** An ordered array of numbers. *Intuition:* A single data point. If you are predicting house prices, a vector $\mathbf{x} = [3, 1500, 2]^T$ represents one house with 3 bedrooms, 1500 sqft, and 2 baths.
- **Matrices (2D):** A grid of numbers. *Intuition:* A spreadsheet or a dataset. Rows are samples; columns are features.
- **Tensors (ND):** Higher-dimensional arrays. *Example:* A color image is a 3D tensor of shape (*Height, Width, Channels*). A video is a 4D tensor adding the Time dimension.

2 Fundamental Operations: Alignment and Similarity

2.1 Matrix Transpose ($\mathbf{X}^T$)

Transposing a matrix flips it over its diagonal. Rows become columns. *Why it matters:* In ML, we often need to "align" dimensions. If you have a feature matrix $\mathbf{X}$ (Samples $\times$ Features) and you want to calculate the correlation between features, you often need $\mathbf{X}^T\mathbf{X}$.

2.2 The Vector Dot Product ($\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}$)

The dot product is a single number: $\sum u_i v_i$.

The Geometric Intuition

The dot product measures **Similarity**. If two vectors point in the same direction, their dot product is large. If they are perpendicular (90°), it is zero. In ML, we use this to see how well a feature vector aligns with our model's weights.

Prediction Engine: $\hat{y} = \mathbf{w}^T \mathbf{x} + b$. This is just a dot product plus a bias.

2.3 Matrix Multiplication: Batch Processing

Multiplying a matrix $\mathbf{A}$ by a matrix $\mathbf{B}$ is like performing multiple dot products at once. *ML Perspective:* When we pass a whole batch of 32 images through a neural network layer, we aren't doing 32 separate calculations. We are doing one single **Matrix Multiplication**. This is why GPUs make ML so fast—they are "Matrix Multiplication Machines."

3 Systems of Equations and the Normal Equation

3.1 Linear Systems: $\mathbf{X}\mathbf{w} = \mathbf{y}$

Most of ML is trying to solve this equation. We have data $\mathbf{X}$ and targets $\mathbf{y}$, and we want to find the "importance" of each feature, $\mathbf{w}$. In most cases, we have more equations (samples) than unknowns (features). This is called an **overdetermined system**. There is usually no perfect solution that hits every point exactly, so we look for the "Best Fit."

3.2 The Closed-Form Normal Equation

To find the weights $\mathbf{w}$ that minimize the squared error, we use:

$$\mathbf{w} = (\mathbf{X}^T \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^T \mathbf{y} \quad (1)$$

When to apply: Use this for small-to-medium datasets where you want the **exact** best solution without using iterative Gradient Descent. It requires the matrix $(\mathbf{X}^T \mathbf{X})$ to be **Invertible**.

4 The Matrix Inverse and Identity Matrix

- **Identity Matrix ($\mathbf{I}$):** The "number 1" of matrices. $\mathbf{AI} = \mathbf{A}$. It has 1s on the diagonal and 0s elsewhere.
- **Inverse ($\mathbf{A}^{-1}$):** The "reciprocal." $\mathbf{AA}^{-1} = \mathbf{I}$.

Warning: Not all matrices have an inverse. If a matrix has redundant columns (perfectly correlated features), it is "singular" and cannot be inverted. This is why we remove highly correlated features in data cleaning!

5 Eigen-everything: Variance and PCA

5.1 Eigenvalues and Eigenvectors

An eigenvector $\mathbf{v}$ is a direction that stays constant during a transformation. The eigenvalue λ is the factor by which it scales.

$$\mathbf{Av} = \lambda\mathbf{v} \quad (2)$$

5.2 The Covariance Matrix

The covariance matrix Σ summarizes how features vary together. If we take the eigenvectors of this matrix, we find the **Principal Components**.

5.3 Principal Component Analysis (PCA)

PCA is the king of dimensionality reduction.

1. It finds the eigenvector with the largest eigenvalue. This is the direction of **Maximum Variance**.
2. It projects the data onto these axes.

Intuition: If you have a 3D cloud of data that looks like a flat pancake, PCA will find the two directions that define the pancake and ignore the "thickness," reducing your 3D data to 2D without losing the main structure.

6 Vector Norms for Regularization

How do we stop a model from "cheating" by using massive weights to fit noise? We penalize the "size" of the weight vector $\mathbf{w}$.

- **L_1 Norm (Manhattan):** $\|\mathbf{w}\|_1 = \sum |w_i|$. *Effect:* It forces some weights to become exactly **zero**. Great for **Feature Selection**.
- **L_2 Norm (Euclidean):** $\|\mathbf{w}\|_2 = \sqrt{\sum w_i^2}$. *Effect:* It keeps weights **small and balanced**. This is the standard "Weight Decay" used in almost all deep learning models to prevent overfitting.

7 Practice Problems

P1: You have a dataset $\mathbf{X}$ where Column 1 is "Height in cm" and Column 2 is "Height in inches." Why will the Normal Equation fail?

Answer: The columns are linearly dependent (perfectly correlated). The matrix $\mathbf{X}^T\mathbf{X}$ will be singular and non-invertible.

P2: If you want to compress your data from 100 features to 10 features while keeping as much "information" as possible, which Linear Algebra tool do you use?

Answer: PCA, by selecting the 10 eigenvectors with the largest eigenvalues.